

SUPPLEMENTARY MATERIALS

Dynamic Democratic Backsliding

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A Example Studies on Public Responses to Democratic Backsliding

Table S1. Example Contributions Studying Voter Behavior regarding Democratic Backsliding in a Static Setting

Experiment	Respondent's Task	Main Finding
Carey et al. (2022)	Choose one of two hypothetical candidates for an upcoming election, who differ in names (race and gender), partisanship, policy positions, past (un)democratic speeches, (un)democratic beliefs	"[B]oth [American] citizens and donors punish candidates who endorse violations of democratic principles irrespective of the candidate's party. However, partisans react very differently to candidates who support voter identification laws that threaten access to the franchise." (p. 230)
Frederiksen (2022)	Rate hypothetical candidates for the presidency/prime minister, who differ in partisanship, policy positions, competence, (un)democratic actions and speeches, etc.	"[U]ndemocratic behavior by political candidates decreases voter support [in Czechia, Mexico, South Korea, the UK, and the US], whereas candidate competence increases support. Contrary to expectations, the effects of undemocratic behavior and competence do not interact." (p. 1147)
Frederiksen (2024)	Rate hypothetical candidates for the presidency/prime minister, who differ in partisanship, policy positions, competence, (un)democratic actions and speeches, etc.	"[P]artisanship does not suppress the negative effects of undemocratic behavior on voting intentions, whereas policy agreement between voters and candidates even increases punishment of undemocratic behavior. However, partisanship has much stronger direct influences on voting intentions than policy agreement and especially undemocratic behavior." (p. 766)
Gidengil, Stolle, and Bergeron-Boutin (2022)	Choose one of two hypothetical candidates for party primaries/leadership, who differ in policy positions, (un)democratic actions and speeches, etc.	"Regardless of party, partisans in both countries [i.e., Canada and the US] proved willing to choose candidates who would loosen legislative and judicial restraints on the executive. While the partisan advantage explanation only held for strong Republicans in the United States, partisans in Canada and the United States alike were apparently willing to weaken restraints on the executive for the sake of their ideological agendas..." (p. 901)
Graham and Svolik (2020)	Choose one of two hypothetical candidates for the state legislature, who differ in partisanship, policy positions, past (un)democratic actions and speeches, etc.	"[O]nly a small fraction of Americans prioritize democratic principles in their electoral choices, and their tendency to do so is decreasing in several measures of polarization, including the strength of partisanship, policy extremism, and candidate platform divergence." (p. 392)
Svolik (2020)	Choose one of two hypothetical candidates for the next presidential election, who differ in positions in economic policy, proposed reforms to the electoral system, etc.	"[Venezuelan respondents] are indeed willing to trade off democratic principles for partisan interests and that their willingness to do so increases in the intensity of their partisanship." (p. 3)
Svolik et al. (2023)	Choose one of two hypothetical candidates for the legislature, who differ in partisanship, policy positions, (un)democratic positions, etc.	"More than any other subset of the European electorate, these [illiberal-right or disengaged] citizens are willing to sacrifice democratic principles to elect candidates and parties that champion their interests." (p. 7)

Note: I specifically document existing conjoint studies because this approach has become a prominent experimental paradigm for studying voter behavior when facing undemocratic politicians.

B Deviations of Theory Section from the Preanalysis Plan

In the spirit of transparency, this appendix details the differences between the paper’s Theoretical Expectations section and the preanalysis plan’s theory section, “Two General Forms of Action Sequence to Subvert Democracy.” I do not additionally compare the final and preregistered designs because the experiment was conducted as preregistered. Many analyses presented in the main text, however, are exploratory and are stated as such within the body text or the figure notes.

B.1 Theoretical Mechanisms

While my preanalysis plan motivated the efficacy of the sequence of increasing severity by drawing on (i) adaptation-level theory (Helson 1948), (ii) creeping normality (Diamond 2005), (iii) cognitive dissonance theory (Festinger 1957), and (iv) status quo bias (Arceneaux and Nicholson 2024), the paper removes the first three psychological mechanisms and expands the theoretical discussion on status quo bias. The reorientation toward status quo bias speaks to Druckman’s (2023, 11) emphasis on this psychological mechanism in explaining democratic backsliding. Adaptation-level theory and creeping normality, on the other hand, may be plausible and relevant mechanisms in explaining the efficacy of increasing severity as a strategic sequence; yet because they are mechanisms that unfold over time whereas respondents in my experiment were exposed to democratic transgressions in quick succession, they may be less suitable for explaining the experimental results at hand.

B.2 Hypotheses

In the preanalysis plan, the preregistered hypotheses were:

- H1: An incumbent will be more likely to survive in office if they incrementally increase the severity of democratic transgressions, compared to an incumbent who does not strategize the sequence of democratic transgressions.
- H2: An incumbent will be more likely to survive in office if they incrementally decrease the severity of democratic transgressions, compared to an incumbent who does not strategize the sequence of democratic transgressions.
- H3a: An incumbent will be more likely to survive in office if they incrementally increase the severity of democratic transgressions, compared to an incumbent who incrementally decreases the severity of democratic transgressions.
- H3b: An incumbent will be less likely to survive in office if they incrementally increase the severity of democratic transgressions, compared to an incumbent who incrementally decreases the severity of democratic transgressions.
- H4: An incumbent will be less likely to survive in office if they transgress democracy step by step, compared to an incumbent who takes a sequence of politically controversial actions that do not fundamentally violate democratic principles.

To streamline the paper, I condense H1–H3b into one research question (“How do different sequences of democratic transgressions, which vary in their severity incrementally, affect voter accountability?”). In the Results section, when I report the finding that sporadic severity appeared as effective as increasing severity, I flag that it runs against H1 in my preanalysis plan.

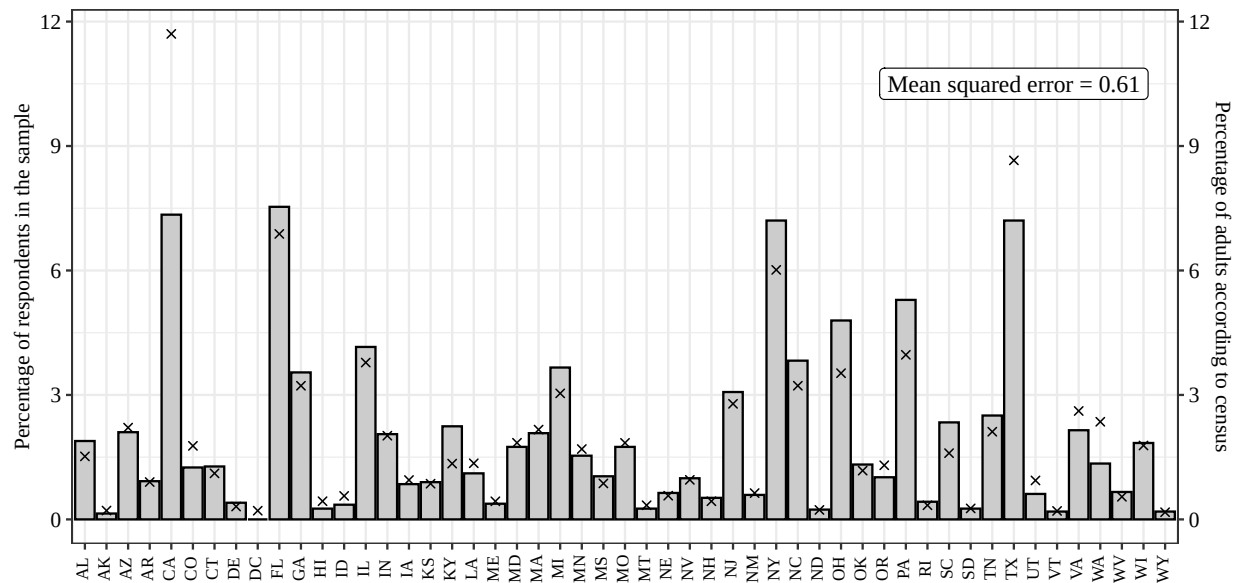
Finally, the paper renames H4 in the preanalysis plan as H1.

C Sample and Ethics Information

C.1 Sample Demographics

Figure S1 shows that the sample consists of respondents from all 50 states. The sample distribution of their state of residence mirrors the population distribution of American adults' state of residence according to the US census.

Figure S1. Percentage of Respondents by State and Comparison with National Benchmarks



Note: Bars indicate the percentage of respondents residing in each state. X marks indicate the percentage of American adults residing in each state according to the US Census Bureau (<https://www.census.gov/data/tables/time-series/demo/popest/2020s-state-detail.html>).

Table S2 on the next page shows that the sample demographics closely match the demographic characteristics of the US adult population in sex, age, and race. Respondent characteristics in education, partisanship, and self-reported political ideology also mirror those in the latest wave of the American National Election Studies (ANES), a high-quality and nationally-representative sample that “provides ‘gold standard’ data on voting, public opinion and political participation in U.S. national elections.”¹

C.2 Survey Partner

I partnered with PureSpectrum to recruit survey participants. PureSpectrum is a multi-source sampling platform that uses a patented technology to screen out respondents that have shown their lack of credibility, reliability, or consistency through online behavior. In addition, it preempts respondents from taking the same survey multiple times by adopting advanced device fingerprinting and

1. National Science Foundation, “2024 American National Election Study Competition (ANES),” July 14, 2021. <https://new.nsf.gov/funding/opportunities/2024-american-national-election-study-competition>.

Table S2. Sample Characteristics in Comparison with National Benchmarks

		Benchmark	Sample
Sex	Male	49.0%	44.7%
	Female	51.0%	54.9%
Age	18–29	20.2%	18.5%
	30–39	17.5%	18.8%
	40–49	15.9%	16.1%
	50–59	16.3%	14.3%
	60–69	15.5%	16.5%
	70+	14.5%	15.8%
Race	White	75.3%	76.5%
	Black	13.3%	12.3%
	Hispanic	16.4%	10.8%
Education	College graduate	34.0%	39.3%
	Not college graduate	66.0%	60.7%
Partisanship	Democrat (including leaner)	44.3%	46.0%
	Republican (including leaner)	39.1%	39.5%
	Independent	16.5%	14.5%
Ideology	Extremely liberal	7.4%	8.2%
	Liberal	17.0%	13.8%
	Somewhat liberal	7.7%	9.6%
	Moderate; middle of the road	33.4%	36.6%
	Somewhat conservative	8.8%	10.5%
	Conservative	16.8%	14.4%
	Extremely conservative	8.8%	6.9%

Note: Nonbinary category not reported. Each respondent can identify with more than one race. Benchmarks for sex, age, and race are calculated from the 2021 American Community Survey. Benchmarks for education, partisanship, and self-reported political ideology are computed from the ANES 2024 Pilot Study.

fraud prevention methods. Additional description of PureSpectrum’s data quality is available at <https://www.purespectrum.com/data-quality>.

The resulting sample is therefore high-quality and has generated many social science publications in top academic journals, including:

- Baum, Matthew A., James N. Druckman, Matthew D. Simonson, Jennifer Lin, and Roy H. Perlis. 2024. “The Political Consequences of Depression: How Conspiracy Beliefs, Participatory Inclinations, and Depression Affect Support for Political Violence.” *American Journal of Political Science* 68(2): 575–94.
- Lacombe, Matthew J., Matthew D. Simonson, Jon Green, and James N. Druckman. 2024.

“Social Disruption, Gun Buying, and Anti-System Beliefs.” *Perspectives on Politics* 22(4): 1100–17.

- Green, Jon, James N. Druckman, Matthew A. Baum, David Lazer, Katherine Ognyanova, Matthew D. Simonson, Jennifer Lin, Mauricio Santillana, and Roy H. Perlis. 2023. “Using General Messages to Persuade on a Politicized Scientific Issue.” *British Journal of Political Science* 53(2): 698–706.
- Green, Jon, James N. Druckman, Matthew A. Baum, Katherine Ognyanova, Matthew D. Simonson, Roy H. Perlis, and David Lazer. 2023. “Media Use and Vaccine Resistance.” *PNAS Nexus* 2(5): pgad146.
- Robertson, Ronald E., Jon Green, Damian J. Ruck, Katherine Ognyanova, Christo Wilson, and David Lazer. 2023. “Users Choose to Engage with More Partisan News Than They Are Exposed to on Google Search.” *Nature* 618: 342–48.

C.3 Covariate Balance

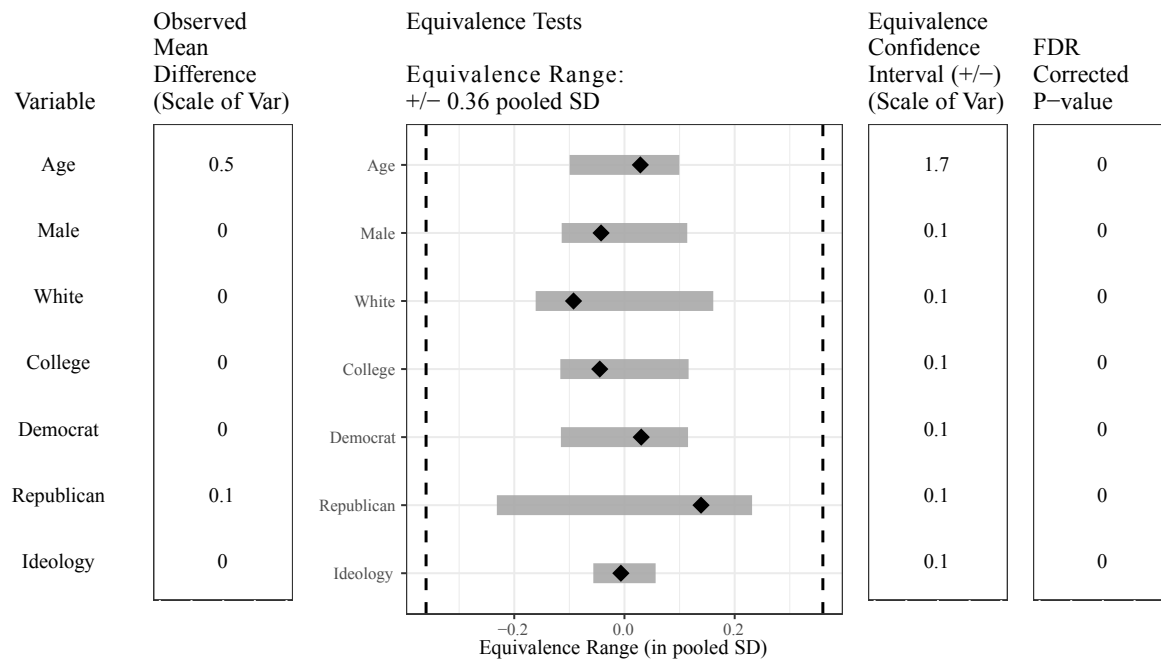
I use equivalence testing to test the covariate balance between the experimental groups. In an equivalence test, the null hypothesis specifies that we will expect a difference in group means, while the alternative hypothesis is equivalence. Following Lakens, Scheel, and Isager (2018, 259), I “use the two one-sided tests (TOST) procedure to test for equivalence and reject the presence of a smallest effect size of interest (SESOI). The TOST procedure can be used to determine if an observed effect is surprisingly small, given that a true effect at least as extreme as the SESOI exists.” I set the SESOI at $\pm 0.36\sigma$, where σ is the pooled standard deviation of the tested covariate (Hartman and Hidalgo 2018, 1006).

Figures S2–S4 show that pretreatment covariates are balanced across the experimental groups, indicating successful randomization.

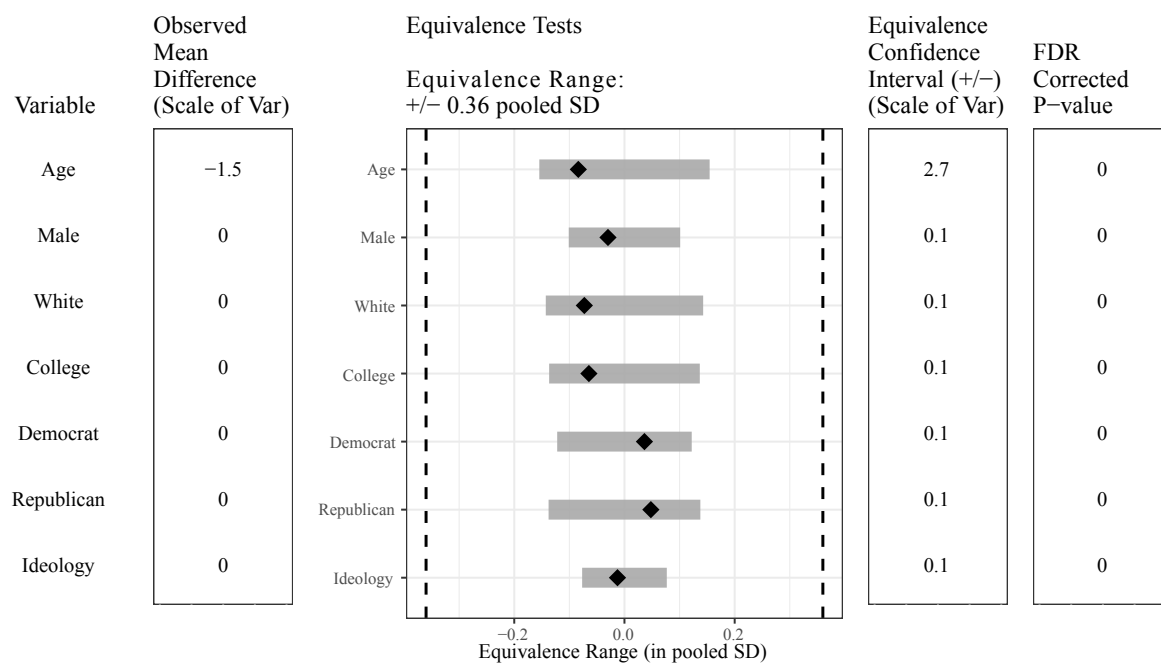
C.4 Ethics

In the consent form, I informed respondents that the study was being conducted by university researchers and that their responses would be anonymous. I informed them about the content of the survey in advance and allowed them to choose whether or not to participate. I made it clear that they could exit the survey at any time. I did not collect any personally identifiable information from respondents. In addition, my experimental stimuli did not involve any deception because respondents were transparently informed that the scenarios they saw were hypothetical.

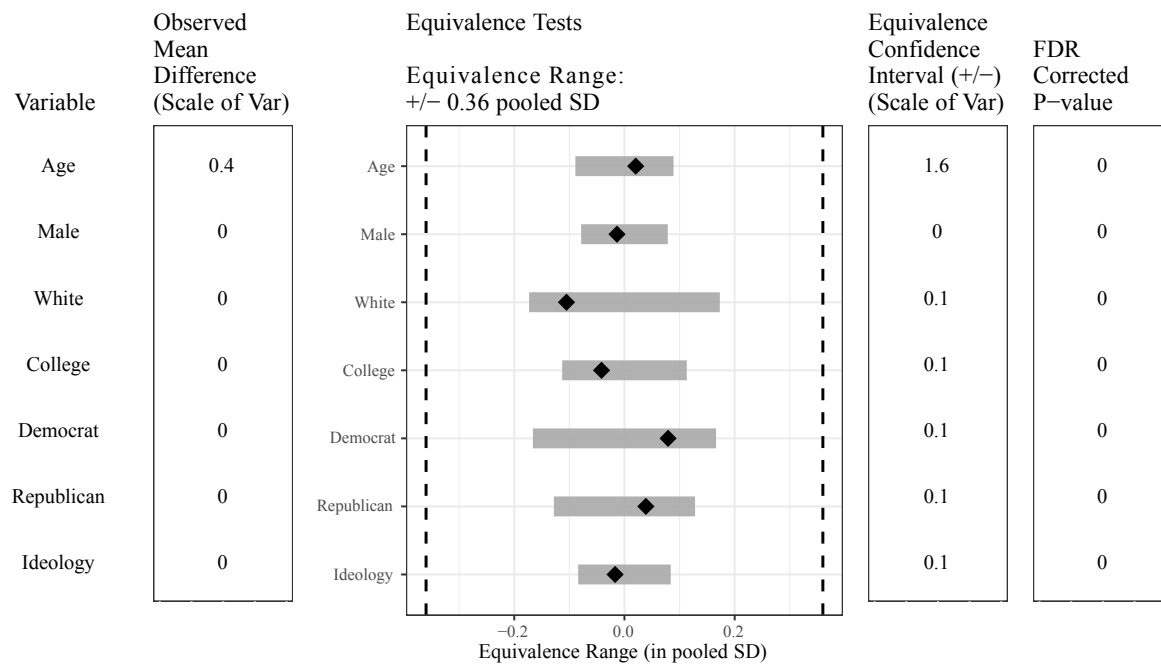
I confirm compliance with American Political Science Association’s *Principles and Guidance for Human Subjects Research*. The study was approved by Emory University’s Institutional Review Board (IRB ID: STUDY00006785).

Figure S2. Covariate Balance between the Increasing Severity Condition and the No Transgressions Condition

Note: Gray bars are the inverted equivalence range in standardized differences. Black diamonds are the observed standardized difference of the covariate.

Figure S3. Covariate Balance between the Decreasing Severity Condition and the No Transgressions Condition

Note: Gray bars are the inverted equivalence range in standardized differences. Black diamonds are the observed standardized difference of the covariate.

Figure S4. Covariate Balance between the Sporadic Severity Condition and the No Transgressions Condition

Note: Gray bars are the inverted equivalence range in standardized differences. Black diamonds are the observed standardized difference of the covariate.

D Pretest Results

This appendix provides details of my pretest results, which are also reported in my preanalysis plan to justify my ranking of the severity of the six democratic transgressions:

1. Proposing to eliminate the bipartisan election commission so that the governor's party can exercise stronger control over how elections are run
2. Signing a redistricting plan that gave the governor's party a few extra seats despite a decline in the polls
3. Ruling by executive order as legislators from the opposing party did not pass legislation the governor favored
4. Banning rallies held by extremists of the opposing party in the state capital
5. Supervising law enforcement investigations of politicians and their associates
6. Barring election officials from accepting funds from non-profit, non-partisan organizations that help administer voting

D.1 Main Analysis

In my pretest, I presented 15 of 25 statements (with a mix of transgressions and non-transgressions) to each respondent and asked them to rate the harmfulness of each action to democracy from 0 ("not at all harmful") to 100 ("extremely harmful"). Figure S5 reports the results, justifying my operationalization of the relative severity of the six democratic transgressions in my experiment.

While Figure S5 shows visually that the "more severe" transgressions as operationalized in my experiment were also perceived as more harmful to democracy by my respondents in the pretest, I also show more formally that this is indeed the case among average respondents using Welch's *t*-tests:

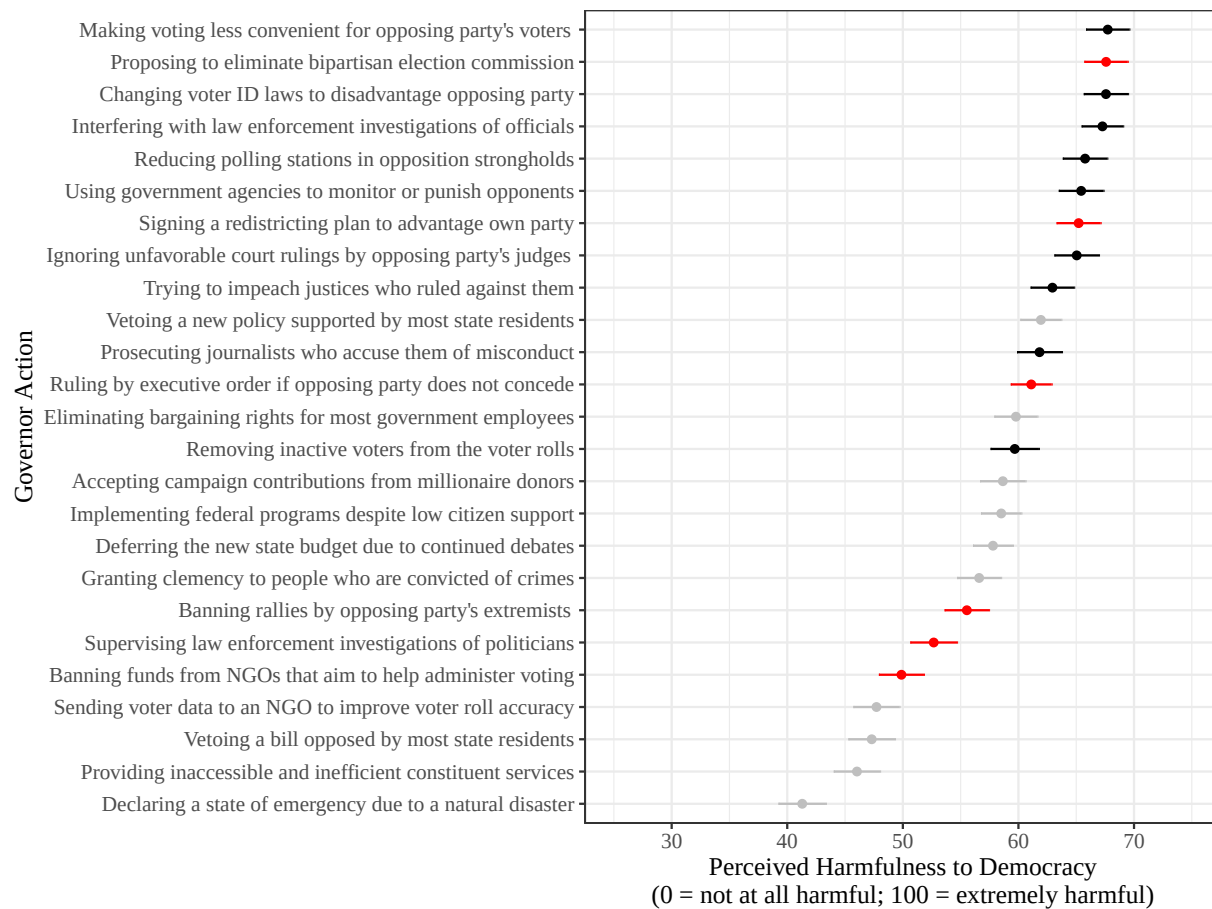
- For item 1 vs. item 2, the mean difference in perceived severity is 2.37 ($t(1,860) = 1.74$, $p = 0.08$).
- For item 2 vs. item 3, the mean difference is 4.10 ($t(1,840) = 3.09$, $p = 0.002$).
- For item 3 vs. item 4, the mean difference is 5.57 ($t(1,834) = 4.18$, $p < 0.0001$).
- For item 4 vs. item 5, the mean difference is 2.87 ($t(1,832) = 2.02$, $p = 0.04$).
- For item 5 vs. item 6, the mean difference is 2.79 ($t(1,829) = 1.95$, $p = 0.05$).

D.2 Subgroup Analysis

I further break down the severity ratings by conducting subgroup analyses. I show that the general ordering of perceived severity of the six democratic transgressions is preserved across various subgroups, not only along partisan and racial lines but also among individuals who hold different policy preferences (see Appendix A of the preanalysis plan).

D.3 Individual Analysis

Although I argued in the main text that the validity of my design did not hinge on all respondents agreeing with the severity ranking (see the discussion on page 17), here I further show that only a minority of respondents from my pretest believed that the "more severe" transgressions were less severe than the "less severe" ones, as defined in my experiment. Because I randomly presented 15 of 25 statements to each respondent in my pretest, most respondents only saw around 3 of 6 statements that ended up being used in my experiment. Therefore, to get at individual-level agreement

Figure S5. Governor Actions Ranked by Perceived Harmfulness to Democracy Based on Pretest

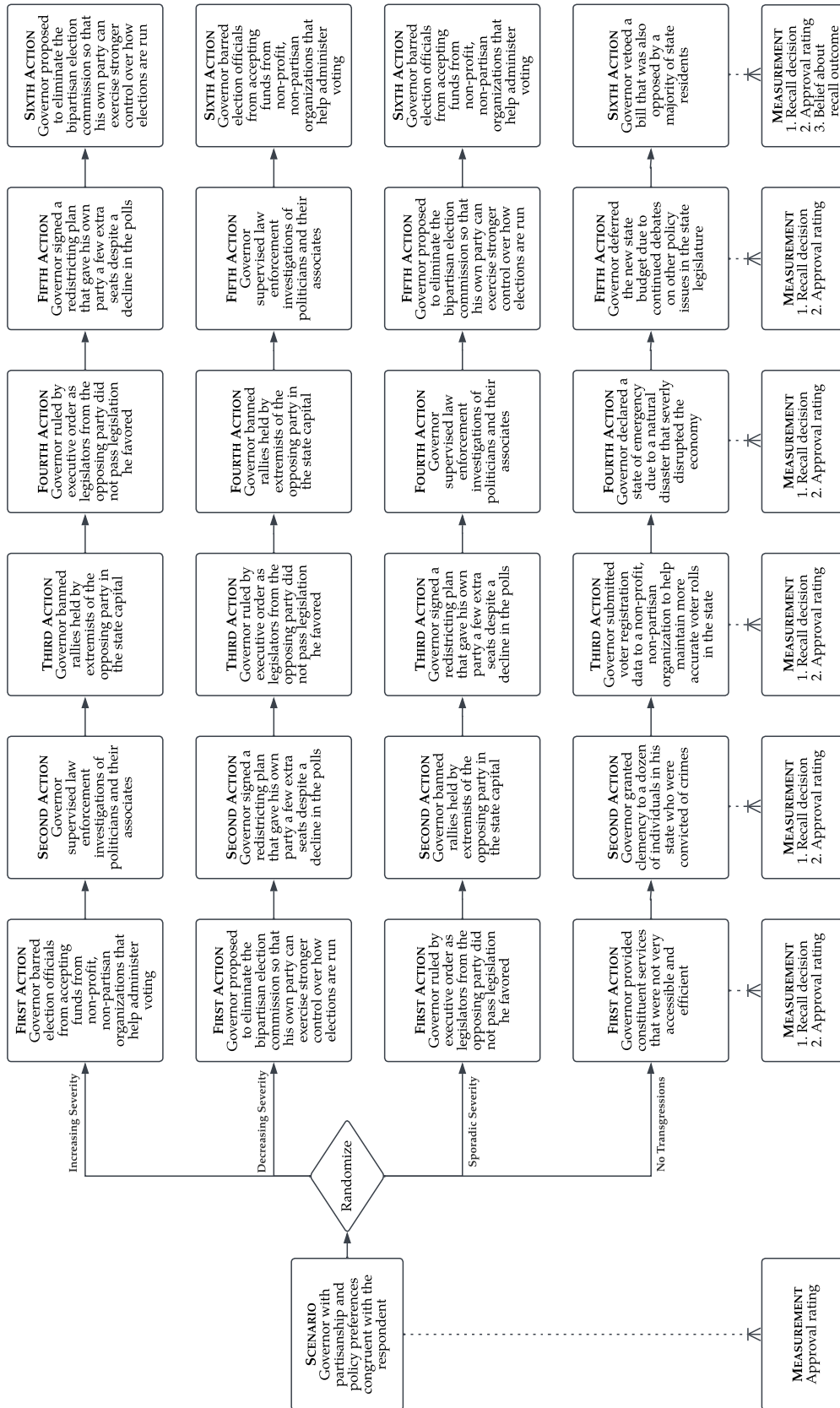
Note: Governor actions in red are the democratic transgressions selected for my experimental treatment. Those in black are also democratic transgressions à la Dahl's (1971) conceptualization of democracy but are not selected for my treatment. Those in gray are not democratic transgressions. Error bars indicate 95% confidence intervals.

with the severity ranking, I take the mean of each respondent's rating for items 1, 2, and 3 (i.e., "more severe" transgressions) and the mean of each respondent's rating for items 4, 5, and 6 (i.e., "less severe" transgressions), while ignoring NA responses when averaging the ratings. I find that 469 of 1,378 (34%) respondents rated the "less severe" transgressions as more harmful to democracy than the "more severe" transgressions, disagreeing with my severity ranking. Subsetting the analysis to respondents who passed two simple attention checks at the beginning of the survey,² I find that the percentage of such respondents reduced to 29% (269 of 925 screeners-attentive respondents). Focusing on respondents who took at least 150 seconds to rate the statements on the survey screen (i.e., those who spent at least 10 seconds on average to read and rate each statement), I find that the percentage further decreased to 23% (108 of 475 timers-attentive respondents). These results suggest that even at the individual level, only a minority of respondents would likely disagree with the general severity ranking adopted in my experiment.

2. The two attention checks are: (1) "Please click the 'neither agree nor disagree' response" and (2) "World War I came after World War II" [agree / disagree / neither agree nor disagree].

E Illustration of the Experimental Design

Figure S6. Experimental Design



F Additional Analysis of the Cox Model

F.1 Full Regression Results

Table S3. Regression Results from Cox Models

	<i>Without Covariates</i>		<i>With Covariates</i>	
	$\hat{\beta}$	Hazard Ratio	$\hat{\beta}$	Hazard Ratio
Increasing Severity	0.329 (0.052)	1.39 [1.25, 1.54]	0.315 (0.053)	1.37 [1.24, 1.52]
Decreasing Severity	0.658 (0.052)	1.93 [1.74, 2.14]	0.594 (0.053)	1.81 [1.63, 2.01]
Sporadic Severity	0.376 (0.052)	1.46 [1.32, 1.61]	0.359 (0.053)	1.43 [1.29, 1.59]
Age: 30–39			–0.142 (0.056)	0.87 [0.78, 0.97]
Age: 40–49			–0.229 (0.060)	0.80 [0.71, 0.89]
Age: 50–59			–0.393 (0.063)	0.68 [0.60, 0.76]
Age: 60–69			–0.477 (0.062)	0.62 [0.55, 0.70]
Age: 70+			–0.507 (0.064)	0.60 [0.53, 0.68]
Male			0.120 (0.036)	1.13 [1.05, 1.21]
White			–0.226 (0.043)	0.80 [0.73, 0.89]
College Graduate			–0.078 (0.037)	0.92 [0.86, 1.00]
Democrat			0.213 (0.057)	1.24 [1.11, 1.39]
Republican			0.118 (0.059)	1.13 [1.00, 1.26]
Self-Reported Ideology			0.139 (0.086)	1.15 [0.97, 1.36]
<i>N</i>		4,234		4,232

Note: The base category is the control group. Main entries are Cox model coefficients, with robust standard errors in parentheses. Hazard ratios are also reported with 95% confidence intervals in brackets. Positive coefficients, and hazard ratios above 1, indicate a greater likelihood of voting to recall the governor. Self-reported ideology is rescaled to range from 0 (extremely liberal) to 1 (extremely conservative). All other variables are binary indicators.

F.2 Heterogeneous Treatment Effects

Table S4. Heterogeneity by Partisanship, Partisan Affect, and Antiestablishment Orientations

	<i>By Partisanship</i>		<i>By Partisan Affect</i>		<i>By Antiestablishment</i>	
	$\hat{\beta}$	Hazard Ratio	$\hat{\beta}$	Hazard Ratio	$\hat{\beta}$	Hazard Ratio
Increasing Severity	0.093 (0.135)	1.10 [0.84, 1.43]	0.218 (0.261)	1.24 [0.75, 2.08]	0.950 (0.129)	2.59 [2.01, 3.33]
Decreasing Severity	0.259 (0.134)	1.30 [1.00, 1.69]	0.583 (0.259)	1.79 [1.08, 2.98]	1.421 (0.128)	4.14 [3.22, 5.33]
Sporadic Severity	0.180 (0.131)	1.20 [0.93, 1.55]	0.538 (0.255)	1.71 [1.04, 2.82]	1.072 (0.127)	2.92 [2.28, 3.75]
Democrat	-0.194 (0.112)	0.82 [0.66, 1.02]	0.104 (0.038)	1.11 [1.03, 1.20]	0.182 (0.055)	1.20 [1.108, 1.33]
Republican	-0.124 (0.114)	0.88 [0.71, 1.10]			0.015 (0.055)	1.01 [0.91, 1.13]
Partisan Affect			-0.963 (0.255)	0.38 [0.23, 0.63]		
Antiestablishment Orientations					1.641 (0.165)	5.16 [3.74, 7.13]
Increasing Severity × Democrat	0.383 (0.156)	1.47 [1.08, 1.99]				
Increasing Severity × Republican	0.162 (0.159)	1.18 [0.86, 1.61]				
Decreasing Severity × Democrat	0.534 (0.155)	1.71 [1.26, 2.31]				
Decreasing Severity × Republican	0.398 (0.158)	1.49 [1.09, 2.03]				
Sporadic Severity × Democrat	0.351 (0.152)	1.42 [1.05, 1.91]				
Sporadic Severity × Republican	0.097 (0.156)	1.10 [0.81, 1.50]				
Increasing Severity × Partisan Affect			0.233 (0.337)	1.26 [0.65, 2.45]		
Decreasing Severity × Partisan Affect			0.213 (0.337)	1.24 [0.64, 2.39]		
Sporadic Severity × Partisan Affect			-0.148 (0.331)	0.86 [0.45, 1.65]		
Increasing Severity × Antiestablishment					-1.191 (0.216)	0.30 [0.20, 0.46]
Decreasing Severity × Antiestablishment					-1.474 (0.213)	0.23 [0.15, 0.35]
Sporadic Severity × Antiestablishment					-1.341 (0.212)	0.26 [0.17, 0.40]
<i>N</i>	4,234		3,599		4,232	

Note: Partisan affect (i.e., the gap between in- and out-party affect) and antiestablishment orientations are rescaled to range from 0 to 1.

F.3 Assessing the Proportional Hazards Assumption

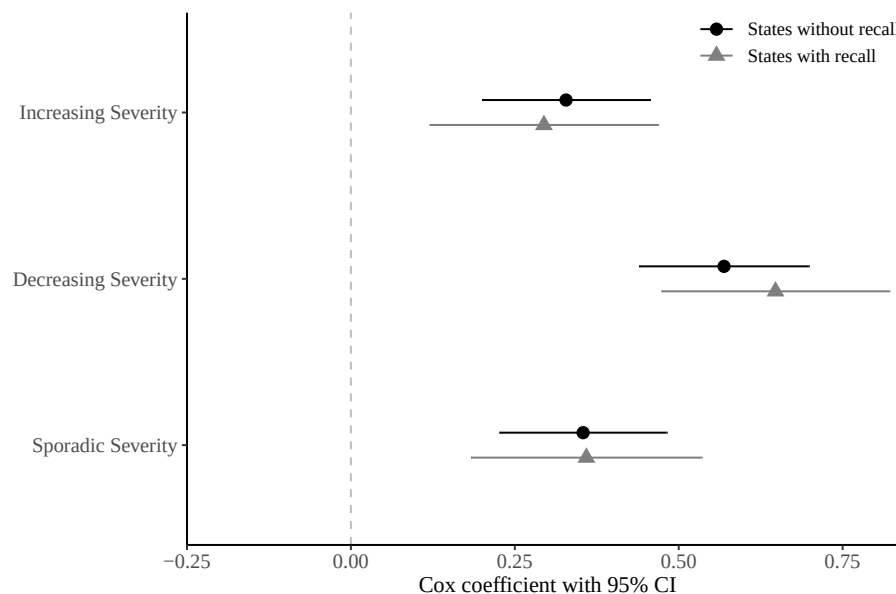
I use the Schoenfeld Residual Test to assess the proportional hazards assumption for the preregistered Cox model. The low p -values displayed in Table S5 suggest that the proportional hazards assumption is not appropriately met. I address this issue by conducting a non-parametric analysis, which corroborates the findings from the Cox analysis, in the main text (see Figure 2).

Table S5. Schoenfeld Residual Test to Assess the Proportional Hazards Assumption

	χ^2	df	p -value
Increasing Severity	73.64	1	0.000
Decreasing Severity	74.52	1	0.000
Sporadic Severity	85.49	1	0.000
Age	62.26	5	0.000
Male	2.85	1	0.092
White	19.61	1	0.000
College Graduate	1.70	1	0.193
Partisanship	6.85	2	0.032
Self-Reported Ideology	0.37	1	0.542
Global Test	315.21	14	0.000

F.4 Treatment Effect Estimates for States with and without Recall Institutions

Figure S7. Coefficient Plot of Treatment Effects Estimated from the Cox Model, Subset by Existence of Recall in the State

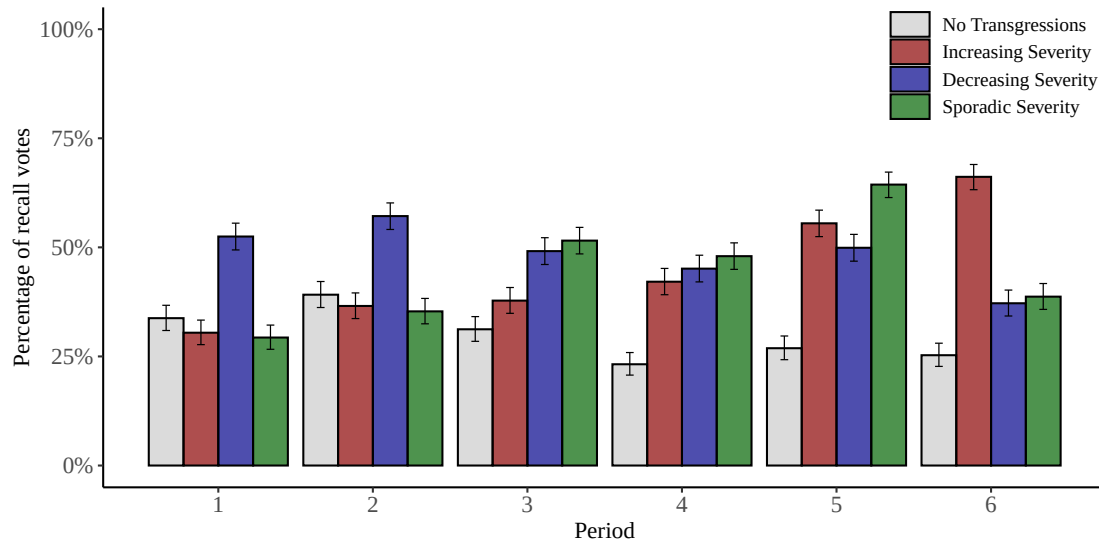


Note: Positive coefficients indicate a greater likelihood of voting to recall the governor, compared to the No Transgressions condition. The states with recall are Alaska, Arizona, California, Colorado, Georgia, Idaho, Illinois, Kansas, Louisiana, Michigan, Minnesota, Montana, Nevada, New Jersey, North Dakota, Oregon, Rhode Island, Washington, and Wisconsin. Full information of the regression estimates is available in Table S6 in Appendix G.

G Descriptive Statistics and Exploratory Analysis

G.1 Recall Decision in Each Period

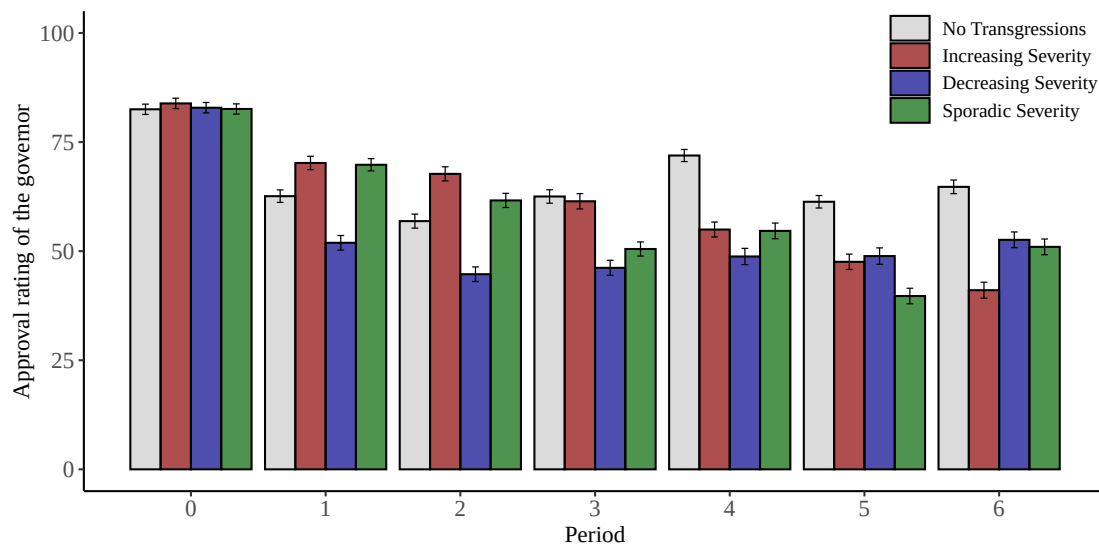
Figure S8. Recall Decision in Each Period by Experimental Condition



Note: This figure shows the percentage of respondents who would vote to recall the governor in each period under different experimental conditions. The question wording is: “Now suppose there is a recall election against the governor. Would you vote to recall the governor in the election?” Error bars indicate 95% confidence intervals.

G.2 Governor Approval in Each Period

Figure S9. Approval Rating in Each Period by Experimental Condition



Note: This figure shows the approval rating of the governor in each period under different experimental conditions. The question wording is: “Please rate your approval score of the governor on a scale from 0 to 100, where 0 indicates lowest approval and 100 indicates highest approval.” Error bars indicate 95% confidence intervals.

G.3 Subgroup Analysis by Presence of Recall in the State

Table S6. Regression Results from Cox Models for Figure S7

	<i>Without Recall</i>		<i>With Recall</i>	
	$\hat{\beta}$	Hazard Ratio	$\hat{\beta}$	Hazard Ratio
Increasing Severity	0.294 (0.089)	1.34 [1.13, 1.60]	0.328 (0.065)	1.39 [1.22, 1.58]
Decreasing Severity	0.648 (0.089)	1.91 [1.61, 2.27]	0.569 (0.066)	1.77 [1.55, 2.01]
Sporadic Severity	0.359 (0.090)	1.43 [1.20, 1.71]	0.354 (0.065)	1.43 [1.25, 1.62]
Age: 30–39	–0.215 (0.092)	0.81 [0.67, 0.97]	–0.100 (0.071)	0.90 [0.79, 1.04]
Age: 40–49	–0.315 (0.100)	0.73 [0.60, 0.89]	–0.185 (0.075)	0.83 [0.72, 0.96]
Age: 50–59	–0.540 (0.110)	0.58 [0.47, 0.72]	–0.324 (0.077)	0.72 [0.62, 0.84]
Age: 60–69	–0.504 (0.106)	0.60 [0.49, 0.74]	–0.464 (0.076)	0.63 [0.54, 0.73]
Age: 70+	–0.635 (0.110)	0.53 [0.43, 0.66]	–0.442 (0.078)	0.64 [0.55, 0.75]
Male	0.095 (0.060)	1.10 [0.98, 1.24]	0.129 (0.045)	1.14 [1.04, 1.24]
White	–0.143 (0.073)	0.867 [0.75, 1.00]	–0.276 (0.054)	0.76 [0.68, 0.84]
College Graduate	–0.161 (0.063)	0.85 [0.75, 0.96]	–0.031 (0.046)	0.97 [0.89, 1.06]
Democrat	0.277 (0.095)	1.32 [1.10, 1.59]	0.174 (0.073)	1.19 [1.03, 1.37]
Republican	0.220 (0.098)	1.25 [1.03, 1.51]	0.062 (0.073)	1.06 [0.92, 1.23]
Self-Reported Ideology	0.235 (0.145)	1.27 [0.95, 1.68]	0.093 (0.107)	1.10 [0.89, 1.35]
<i>N</i>	2,739		1,493	

Note: The base category is the control group. Main entries are Cox model coefficients, with robust standard errors in parentheses. Hazard ratios are also reported with 95% confidence intervals in brackets. Positive coefficients, and hazard ratios above 1, indicate a greater likelihood of voting to recall the governor. Self-reported ideology is rescaled to range from 0 (extremely liberal) to 1 (extremely conservative). All other variables are binary indicators.

G.4 Predictors of Loyal Supporters

Table S7. Predictors of Loyal Supporters Reluctant to Recall the Governor in All Periods

	<i>DV: Not Recalling the Governor in All Periods (= 1)</i>			
	No Transgressions	Increasing Severity	Decreasing Severity	Sporadic Severity
Constant	0.33 (0.06)	0.24 (0.06)	0.25 (0.06)	0.13 (0.05)
Age: 30–39	0.06 (0.04)	–0.01 (0.04)	0.03 (0.04)	0.15 (0.04)
Age: 40–49	0.15 (0.05)	–0.01 (0.04)	0.04 (0.04)	0.12 (0.04)
Age: 50–59	0.20 (0.05)	0.05 (0.04)	0.00 (0.04)	0.20 (0.04)
Age: 60–69	0.24 (0.05)	0.09 (0.04)	0.01 (0.04)	0.18 (0.04)
Age: 70+	0.30 (0.05)	0.04 (0.04)	0.01 (0.04)	0.20 (0.04)
Male	–0.01 (0.03)	–0.02 (0.02)	–0.04 (0.02)	–0.03 (0.02)
White	0.18 (0.03)	0.04 (0.03)	0.02 (0.03)	–0.00 (0.03)
College Graduate	0.09 (0.03)	0.00 (0.03)	–0.00 (0.03)	–0.02 (0.03)
Democrat	0.03 (0.04)	–0.10 (0.04)	–0.12 (0.04)	–0.06 (0.04)
Republican	0.06 (0.04)	–0.05 (0.04)	–0.13 (0.04)	–0.00 (0.04)
Self-Reported Ideology	–0.20 (0.06)	0.01 (0.06)	0.06 (0.05)	–0.05 (0.06)
Antiestablishment Orientations	–0.38 (0.06)	–0.08 (0.05)	–0.04 (0.05)	–0.00 (0.05)
Adjusted R^2	0.15	0.01	0.01	0.03
N	1,060	1,061	1,042	1,067

Note: Entries are OLS estimates with robust standard errors in parentheses. Self-reported ideology and antiestablishment orientations are rescaled to range from 0 to 1, with higher values indicating more conservatism and more antiestablishment orientations, respectively. All other variables are binary indicators.

G.5 Relationship between Affective Polarization and Loyal Governor Support

Table S8. Estimated Relationship between Affective Polarization and Loyal Support for the Governor across Experimental Conditions

	<i>DV: Not Recalling the Governor in All Periods (= 1)</i>							
	No Transgressions		Increasing Severity		Decreasing Severity		Sporadic Severity	
Constant	0.41 (0.02)	0.18 (0.05)	0.18 (0.01)	0.11 (0.04)	0.16 (0.01)	0.12 (0.04)	0.19 (0.01)	0.07 (0.03)
Partisan Affect	0.04 (0.02)	0.02 (0.02)	0.03 (0.01)	0.02 (0.01)	0.03 (0.01)	0.03 (0.01)	0.05 (0.01)	0.04 (0.01)
Age: 30–39		0.02 (0.05)		−0.04 (0.04)		0.01 (0.04)		0.12 (0.04)
Age: 40–49		0.15 (0.05)		−0.02 (0.04)		0.02 (0.04)		0.09 (0.04)
Age: 50–59		0.21 (0.05)		0.05 (0.04)		−0.01 (0.04)		0.15 (0.05)
Age: 60–69		0.29 (0.06)		0.10 (0.05)		0.00 (0.04)		0.14 (0.04)
Age: 70+		0.31 (0.06)		0.03 (0.04)		0.02 (0.04)		0.18 (0.04)
Male		−0.02 (0.03)		−0.01 (0.03)		−0.03 (0.02)		−0.01 (0.03)
White		0.21 (0.04)		0.06 (0.03)		0.01 (0.03)		0.01 (0.03)
College Graduate		0.11 (0.03)		0.00 (0.03)		0.02 (0.03)		0.00 (0.03)
Republican		0.03 (0.04)		0.07 (0.03)		−0.02 (0.03)		0.05 (0.03)
Self-Reported Ideology		−0.29 (0.06)		−0.06 (0.06)		0.09 (0.05)		−0.04 (0.06)
Adjusted R^2	0.01	0.14	0.00	0.02	0.01	0.00	0.02	0.03
N	875	875	919	919	895	895	910	910

Note: Entries are OLS estimates with robust standard errors in parentheses. Self-reported ideology and partisan affect are rescaled to range from 0 to 1, with higher values indicating more conservatism and more distance between out-party and in-party affect, respectively. All other variables are binary indicators.

G.6 Assessments of Whether the Recall Would Be Successful

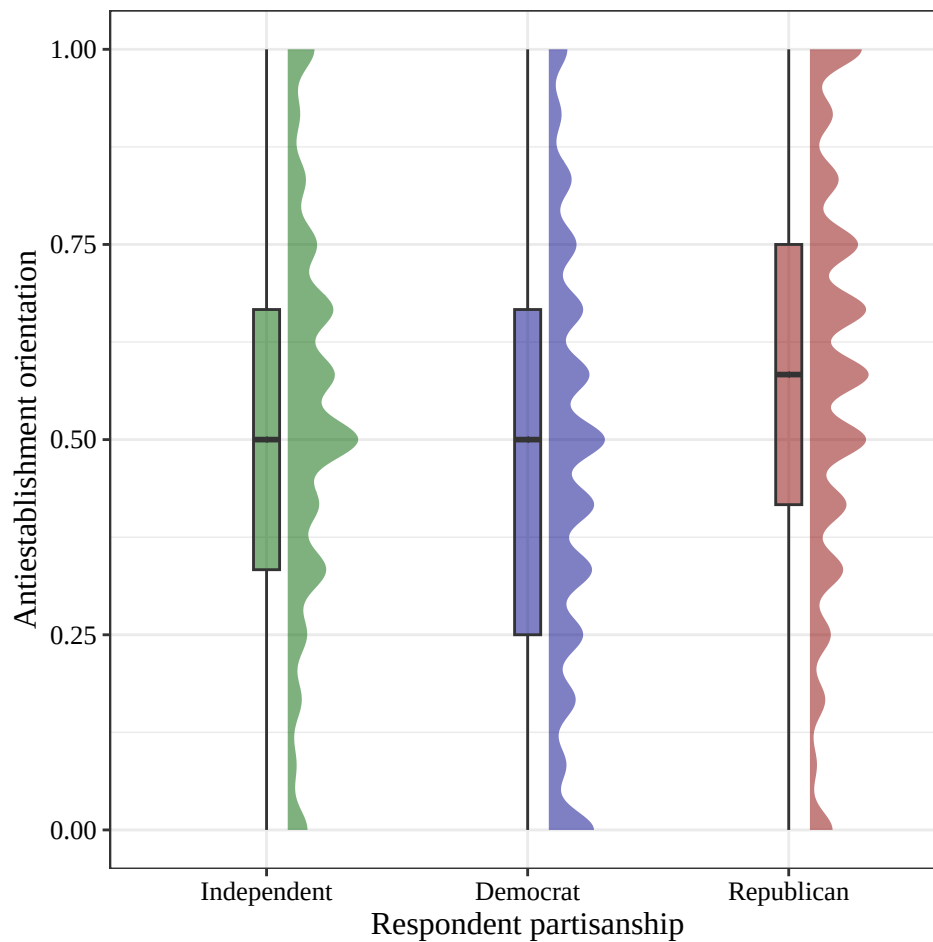
Table S9. Average Treatment Effects on Assessments of Whether the Recall Would Be Successful at Some Point

	<i>DV: Recall Would Be Successful at Some Point (= 1)</i>	
Constant	0.34 (0.01)	0.42 (0.03)
Increasing Severity	0.31 (0.02)	0.31 (0.02)
Decreasing Severity	0.25 (0.02)	0.25 (0.02)
Sporadic Severity	0.25 (0.02)	0.25 (0.02)
Age: 30–39		–0.02 (0.02)
Age: 40–49		–0.07 (0.03)
Age: 50–59		–0.12 (0.03)
Age: 60–69		–0.20 (0.03)
Age: 70+		–0.19 (0.03)
Male		0.05 (0.01)
White		–0.01 (0.02)
College Graduate		0.01 (0.02)
Democrat		0.07 (0.02)
Republican		0.04 (0.02)
Self-Reported Ideology		–0.09 (0.03)
Adjusted R^2	0.06	0.09
N	4,234	4,232

Note: The base category is the control group. Entries are OLS estimates with robust standard errors in parentheses. Self-reported ideology is rescaled to range from 0 to 1, with higher values indicating more conservatism. All other variables are binary indicators.

G.7 Partisanship and Antiestablishment Orientations

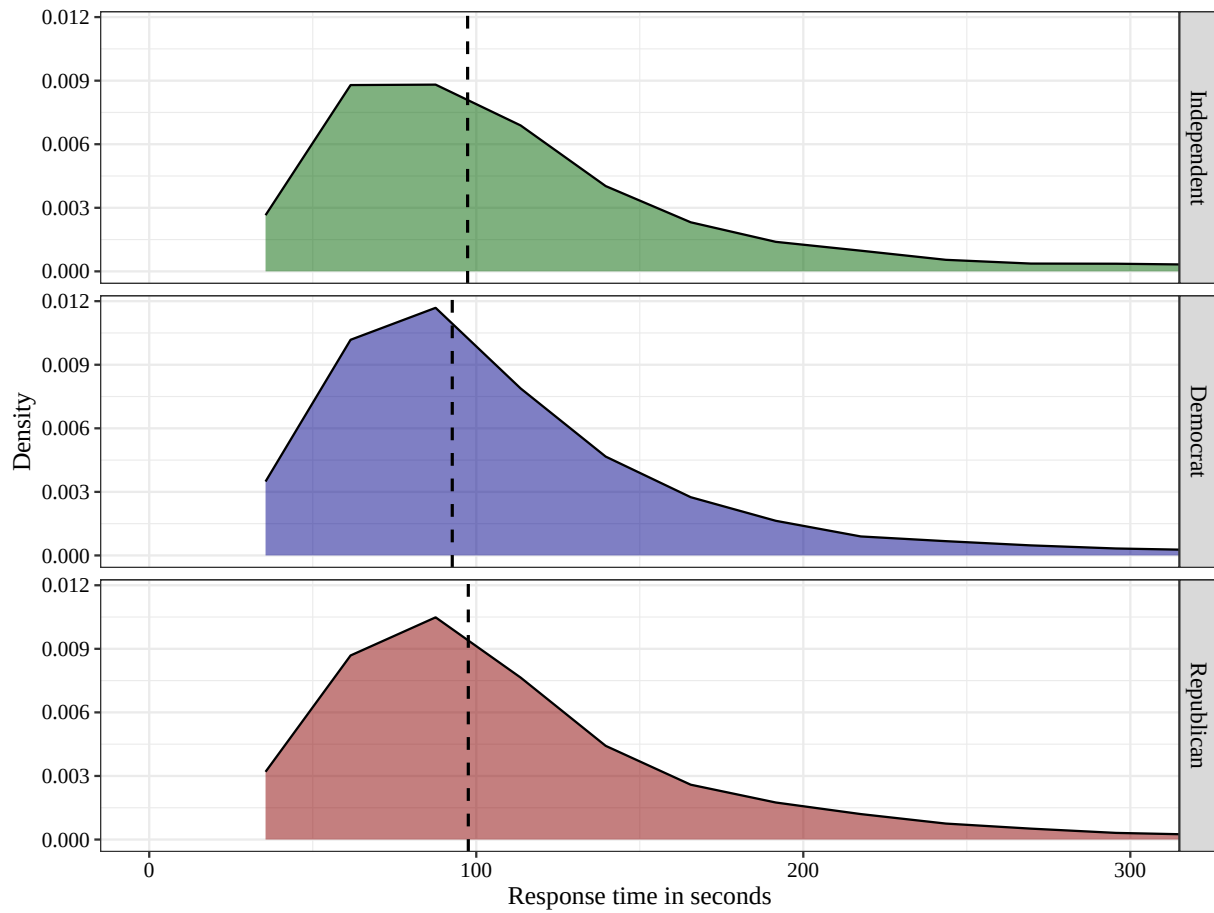
Figure S10. Relationship between Partisanship and Antiestablishment Orientations



Note: Antiestablishment orientations are measured by using three statements taken from Uscinski et al. (2021): (1) “Much of our lives are being controlled by plots hatched in secret places”; (2) “Official government accounts of events cannot be trusted”; and (3) “Politics is a battle between good and evil” [five-point Likert scale from “strongly disagree” to “strongly agree”]. OLS estimates indicate that, on average, Independents are more antiestablishment than Democrats ($\hat{\beta} = 0.061$, $SE = 0.011$, $t = 5.626$, $p < 0.0001$) but less antiestablishment than Republicans ($\hat{\beta} = -0.047$, $SE = 0.011$, $t = -4.236$, $p < 0.0001$).

G.8 Respondent Engagement by Partisanship

Figure S11. Total Time Spent on the Experiment by Partisanship



Note: Dashed lines indicate median response times in the experimental module for different partisan subgroups. OLS estimates indicate that, on average, Independents did not spend statistically significantly different time than Democrats ($\hat{\beta} = 0.967$, $SE = 8.906$, $t = 0.109$, $p = 0.914$) and Republicans ($\hat{\beta} = -1.155$, $SE = 6.081$, $t = -0.190$, $p = 0.849$) in the experiment.

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